



Py

Python Learning Guide

WHAT • WHEN • HOW

32 Topics · Cheatsheets + Standard Library

Structured for Progressive Learning & Deep Understanding

01–23 Python Cheatsheets

24–32 Standard Library

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PART 1

Python Cheatsheets

Topics 01 — 23

TOPIC 01

Cheatsheet 01 · Variables, Types, Operators

Python Basics

W WHAT IS IT?

Python Basics covers the foundational building blocks of the language: variables, data types (int, float, str, bool, NoneType), arithmetic & comparison operators, type conversion, and the interactive print/input workflow. Every Python program starts here.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use these concepts from day one and in every program you ever write. Variable assignment, type checks with `type()`, and numeric/string operations appear in all domains: web backends, data science, automation, and AI.

H HOW TO USE?

Declare variables with simple assignment. Use f-strings for output. Cast between types with `int()`, `float()`, `str()`. Check types with `isinstance()`. Python is dynamically typed — no type declarations needed.

```
name = 'Saim' # str
age = 22 # int
gpa = 3.85 # float
is_student = True # bool
nothing = None # NoneType

print(f'Name: {name}, Age: {age}') # f-string
print(type(age)) # <class 'int'>
print(isinstance(age, int)) # True
x = int('42') # type casting
```

TOPIC 02

Cheatsheet 02 · Python's Power Tools

Built-in Functions

W WHAT IS IT?

Python ships with 70+ built-in functions available without any import. The most essential include: `print()`, `input()`, `len()`, `range()`, `type()`, `isinstance()`, `int/float/str/bool` conversions, `min()`, `max()`, `sum()`, `abs()`, `round()`, `sorted()`, `reversed()`, `enumerate()`, `zip()`, `map()`, `filter()`, `open()`.

W WHEN TO USE?

Reach for built-ins before third-party libraries — they are faster, always available, and idiomatically Pythonic. Use `enumerate()` in every for-loop where you need an index. Use `zip()` to pair parallel lists. Use `sorted()` instead of `list.sort()` when you need a new list.

H HOW TO USE?

Call directly — no import needed. Chain them for concise code: `sorted(set(items))` removes duplicates and sorts in one line. Use `help(func)` in REPL to see documentation instantly.

```
nums = [5, 3, 8, 1, 9, 2]
print(min(nums), max(nums), sum(nums)) # 1 9 28
print(sorted(nums)) # [1,2,3,5,8,9]

# enumerate: index + value
for i, v in enumerate(['a','b','c']):
    print(i, v) # 0 a, 1 b, 2 c

# zip: pair two lists
names = ['Alice', 'Bob']
scores = [95, 87]
for n, s in zip(names, scores):
    print(f'{n}: {s}')
```

TOPIC 03

Cheatsheet 03 · if/elif/else · for · while

Control Flow

W WHAT IS IT?

Control flow determines the order of execution. Python provides: if/elif/else for branching, for loops for iteration, while loops for condition-based repetition, and break/continue/pass for loop control. Match-case (Python 3.10+) adds structural pattern matching.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use if/elif/else whenever a decision must be made. Use for loops over any iterable (lists, strings, dicts, ranges). Use while loops when the number of iterations is unknown upfront — e.g., reading input until valid. Use break to exit early, continue to skip an iteration.

H HOW TO USE?

Python uses indentation (4 spaces) instead of braces. The colon (:) opens a block. Use range(start, stop, step) to generate number sequences. Combine with else on loops for 'completed without break' logic.

```
# if/elif/else
score = 78
if score >= 90: grade = 'A'
elif score >= 80: grade = 'B'
elif score >= 70: grade = 'C'
else: grade = 'F'

# for loop with range
for i in range(0, 10, 2): # 0,2,4,6,8
    print(i, end=' ')

# while with break
n = 0
while True:
    if n == 5: break
    n += 1
```

TOPIC 04

Cheatsheet 04 · def · lambda · return

Functions

W WHAT IS IT?

Functions are reusable blocks of code defined with `def`. They accept parameters, perform operations, and optionally return values. Python supports default parameters, keyword arguments, `lambda` (anonymous) functions, and higher-order functions that accept/return other functions.

W WHEN TO USE?

Define a function whenever you find yourself copy-pasting the same code block. Functions improve readability, enable testing, and support the DRY principle. Lambda functions are ideal for short, single-expression operations passed to `map()`, `filter()`, `sorted()`, etc.

H HOW TO USE?

Use `def name(params):` followed by an indented body. Return values with `return`. Use default parameter values to make arguments optional. Add type hints for clarity. Docstrings go immediately after the `def` line.

```
# Basic function with default param
def greet(name: str, greeting: str = 'Hello') -> str:
    '''Return a greeting string.'''
    return f'{greeting}, {name}!'

print(greet('Saim')) # Hello, Saim!
print(greet('Bob', 'Hi')) # Hi, Bob!

# Lambda function
square = lambda x: x ** 2
nums = [1, 2, 3, 4]
squared = list(map(square, nums)) # [1,4,9,16]

# Higher-order function
evens = list(filter(lambda x: x % 2 == 0, nums))
```

TOPIC 05

Cheatsheet 05 · Sequences & Indexing

Lists and Tuples

W WHAT IS IT?

Lists are ordered, mutable sequences: [1, 2, 3]. Tuples are ordered, immutable sequences: (1, 2, 3). Both support indexing (list[0]), slicing (list[1:4]), and iteration. Lists have methods like append(), extend(), insert(), remove(), pop(), sort(), reverse(). Tuples are faster and hashable — usable as dict keys.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use lists when you need a mutable, ordered collection that will be modified (append, remove). Use tuples for fixed data (coordinates, RGB values, function return of multiple values) where immutability signals intent. Prefer tuples for performance-critical iteration.

H HOW TO USE?

Create with [] or list(). Slice with [start:stop:step]. Negative indices count from the end: list[-1] is the last element. Unpack tuples with a, b = (1, 2). Use * to capture the rest: first, *rest = [1,2,3,4].

```
fruits = ['apple', 'banana', 'cherry', 'date']
print(fruits[0]) # apple
print(fruits[-1]) # date
print(fruits[1:3]) # ['banana', 'cherry']
print(fruits[::-1]) # reverse

fruits.append('elderberry')
fruits.insert(1, 'avocado')
fruits.remove('banana')
popped = fruits.pop() # removes last

# Tuple unpacking
point = (10, 20, 30)
x, y, z = point
first, *rest = [1, 2, 3, 4, 5]
```


TOPIC 06

Cheatsheet 06 · Key-Value Mappings

Dictionaries

W WHAT IS IT?

Dictionaries are unordered (Python 3.7+ insertion-ordered), mutable collections of key-value pairs: {'key': value}. Keys must be hashable (strings, numbers, tuples). They provide O(1) average lookup. Key methods: get(), keys(), values(), items(), update(), pop(), setdefault().

W WHEN TO USE?

Use dicts whenever you need to associate keys with values — user profiles, config settings, caches, frequency counts, lookup tables. Prefer dict.get(key, default) over dict[key] to avoid KeyError. Use collections.defaultdict for auto-initializing values.

H HOW TO USE?

Create with {} or dict(). Iterate with .items() for key-value pairs. Merge dicts with {**d1, **d2} or d1 | d2 (Python 3.9+). Use dict comprehensions for transformation: {k: v*2 for k, v in d.items()}.

```
student = {'name': 'Saim', 'age': 22, 'gpa': 3.85}

# Access
print(student['name']) # Saim
print(student.get('dept', 'SWE')) # SWE (default)

# Modify
student['age'] = 23
student.update({'dept': 'SWE', 'year': 4})

# Iterate
for key, val in student.items():
    print(f'{key}: {val}')

# Dict comprehension
squares = {n: n**2 for n in range(1, 6)}
```

TOPIC 07

Cheatsheet 07 · Unique Collections & Set Math

Sets

W WHAT IS IT?

A set is an unordered collection of unique, hashable elements: {1, 2, 3}. Sets automatically eliminate duplicates and support mathematical set operations: union (|), intersection (&), difference (-), symmetric difference (^). Useful methods: add(), remove(), discard(), pop(), clear().

W WHEN TO USE?

Use sets to remove duplicates from a list: `list(set(my_list))`. Use set operations to find common elements (intersection), all unique elements (union), or elements in one but not another (difference). Membership testing in sets is $O(1)$ vs $O(n)$ for lists.

H HOW TO USE?

Create with `set()` or `{val1, val2}`. Never use `{}` alone — that creates an empty dict. Use `frozenset()` for an immutable set (hashable, usable as dict key). Chain set operations: `(a | b) - c`.

```
a = {1, 2, 3, 4, 5}
b = {3, 4, 5, 6, 7}

print(a | b) # union: {1,2,3,4,5,6,7}
print(a & b) # intersection: {3,4,5}
print(a - b) # difference: {1,2}
print(a ^ b) # sym. diff: {1,2,6,7}

# Remove duplicates from a list
items = [1, 2, 2, 3, 3, 3, 4]
unique = list(set(items)) # [1, 2, 3, 4]

# Fast membership test
allowed = {'admin', 'editor', 'viewer'}
print('admin' in allowed) # True - O(1)
```

TOPIC 08

Cheatsheet 08 · List · Dict · Set · Generator

Comprehensions

W WHAT IS IT?

Comprehensions are concise, readable syntax for creating collections from iterables. Python supports: list comprehensions `[expr for x in iterable if cond]`, dict comprehensions `{k: v ...}`, set comprehensions `{expr ...}`, and generator expressions `(expr ...)` — lazy, memory-efficient versions.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use comprehensions instead of for-loops when building a new collection from an existing one with optional filtering. They are faster than equivalent loops and more Pythonic. Use generator expressions for large datasets to avoid loading everything into memory.

H HOW TO USE?

Structure: `[expression for variable in iterable]`. Add a condition: `[expr for var in iterable if condition]`. Nest for matrix operations. Wrap in `()` for a generator instead of `[]`. Never use comprehensions for side effects — use regular loops for `print()` or file writes.

```
# List comprehension
squares = [x**2 for x in range(1, 6)] # [1,4,9,16,25]

# With filter
evens = [x for x in range(20) if x % 2 == 0]

# Dict comprehension
word_len = {w: len(w) for w in ['Python','is','cool']}

# Set comprehension
unique_chars = {c.lower() for c in 'Hello World'}

# Generator expression (memory-efficient)
total = sum(x**2 for x in range(1_000_000))

# Nested comprehension (matrix)
matrix = [[r*c for c in range(3)] for r in range(3)]
```

TOPIC 09

Cheatsheet 09 · Methods, Slicing, Encoding

Manipulating Strings

W WHAT IS IT?

Strings in Python are immutable sequences of Unicode characters. Python provides 40+ string methods: `upper()`, `lower()`, `strip()`, `split()`, `join()`, `replace()`, `find()`, `index()`, `startswith()`, `endswith()`, `count()`, `encode()`, `decode()`. Strings support slicing and all sequence operations.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use string methods for text parsing, cleaning, and transformation — extremely common in web development, data processing, and file I/O. Use `split()` to tokenize input, `join()` to combine lists into strings, `strip()` to clean whitespace from user input.

H HOW TO USE?

Call methods directly on string literals or variables. Chain them: `'Hello World'.strip().lower()`. Use `in` operator for substring search. Strings are immutable — every method returns a new string.

```
s = ' Hello, World! '
print(s.strip()) # 'Hello, World!'
print(s.lower()) # ' hello, world! '
print(s.upper())
print(s.replace('World', 'Python'))
print(s.strip().split(', ')) # ['Hello', 'World!']

words = ['Python', 'is', 'powerful']
print(' '.join(words)) # 'Python is powerful'

# Slicing
text = 'abcdefgh'
print(text[2:6]) # cdef
print(text[::-1]) # hgfedcba (reverse)

print('world' in 'Hello world') # True
```

TOPIC 10

Cheatsheet 10 · f-strings, format(), %

String Formatting

W WHAT IS IT?

Python offers three main string formatting approaches: (1) f-strings (Python 3.6+): `f'Hello {name}'`, the modern standard — fast and readable. (2) `str.format()`: `'Hello {}'.format(name)` — compatible with older Python. (3) %-formatting: `'Hello %s' % name` — legacy C-style, rarely used in new code.

W WHEN TO USE?

Prefer f-strings for all new code — they are the most readable and fastest. Use `str.format()` when building templates programmatically or for Python 2 compatibility. Use format spec mini-language for number/width formatting: `f'{pi:.2f}'`, `f'{n:>10}'`, `f'{val:,}'`.

H HOW TO USE?

Inside f-strings, use `{variable}` for simple insertion. Add format spec after colon: `{value:.2f}` for 2 decimals, `{value:05d}` for zero-padded int, `{value:>20}` for right-align. Use `!r` for `repr()`, `!s` for `str()`, `!a` for `ascii()`.

```
name = 'Saim'
score = 98.567
big_num = 1234567

# f-string basics
print(f'Hello, {name}!')
print(f'Score: {score:.2f}') # 98.57
print(f'Big: {big_num:,}') # 1,234,567
print(f'{name:>20}') # right-align
print(f'{score:010.2f}') # 0000098.57

# str.format()
msg = 'Name: {}, Score: {:.1f}'.format(name, score)

# Multi-line f-string
report = (f'Student: {name}\n'
f'GPA: {score:.2f}')
```

TOPIC 11

Cheatsheet 11 · Pattern Matching with re

Regular Expressions

W WHAT IS IT?

Regular expressions (regex) are powerful patterns for matching, searching, and manipulating text. The `re` module provides: `re.match()` (beginning), `re.search()` (anywhere), `re.findall()` (all matches), `re.sub()` (replace), `re.split()` (split on pattern), `re.compile()` (pre-compile for reuse). Special chars: `.` `*` `+` `?` `^` `$` `[]` `{}` `()` `|` `\`

W WHEN TO USE?

Use regex when simple string methods (`split`, `replace`, `find`) are insufficient — validating emails/phone numbers, extracting structured data from unstructured text, log parsing, HTML/CSV parsing (with caution), and find-replace with complex patterns. Avoid regex for simple substring checks — use `'in'` or `str.find()` instead.

H HOW TO USE?

Import `re`. Use raw strings `r'pattern'` to avoid backslash conflicts. Compile patterns with `re.compile()` if reused. Use groups `()` to capture parts: `match.group(1)`. Add flags: `re.IGNORECASE`, `re.MULTILINE`.

```
import re

# Validate email
pattern = r'^[\w.-]+@[\w.-]+\.\w{2,}$'
email = 'saim@diu.edu.bd'
print(bool(re.match(pattern, email))) # True

# Extract all numbers from text
text = 'Order 123 costs 456.78 BDT'
nums = re.findall(r'\d+\.\d*', text) # ['123', '456.78']

# Replace with sub
clean = re.sub(r'\s+', ' ', 'too many spaces')

# Groups: extract date parts
m = re.search(r'(\d{4})-(\d{2})-(\d{2})', '2025-06-15')
year, month, day = m.group(1), m.group(2), m.group(3)
```

TOPIC 12

Cheatsheet 12 · pathlib & os.path

File & Directory Paths

W WHAT IS IT?

Python provides two ways to handle filesystem paths: the modern `pathlib.Path` (object-oriented, Python 3.4+) and the legacy `os.path` module. `pathlib.Path` objects support joining with `/`, existence checks (`.exists()`, `.is_file()`, `.is_dir()`), creation (`.mkdir()`), listing (`.iterdir()`), and pattern matching (`.glob()`).

W WHEN TO USE?

Always prefer `pathlib` over `os.path` for new code — it is cleaner, cross-platform, and more expressive. Use it whenever your program must navigate the filesystem: reading config files, processing directories of uploads, generating output paths, or building CLI tools.

H HOW TO USE?

from `pathlib` import `Path`. Join paths with `/`: `Path('data') / 'output' / 'file.csv'`. Get parts with `.name`, `.stem`, `.suffix`, `.parent`. Use `Path.home()` and `Path.cwd()` for home/current directory. Use `glob('**/*.py')` for recursive search.

```
from pathlib import Path

# Build paths cross-platform
base = Path('data')
output = base / 'results' / 'report.csv'

# Inspect
print(output.parent) # data/results
print(output.stem) # report
print(output.suffix) # .csv

# Create directory
output.parent.mkdir(parents=True, exist_ok=True)

# Glob: find all .py files recursively
for py_file in Path('.').glob('**/*.py'):
    print(py_file)

p = Path.home() # /home/username
```

TOPIC 13

Cheatsheet 13 · open() · with · modes

Reading & Writing Files

W WHAT IS IT?

Python's built-in `open()` function handles file I/O. Modes: 'r' (read), 'w' (write, truncates), 'a' (append), 'b' (binary), 'x' (exclusive create). The context manager (with `open()` as `f`;) automatically closes files even if an exception occurs. Text files use `readline()`, `readlines()`, `writelines()`. Binary files use `read(n)` and `write(bytes)`.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use file I/O for reading config files, processing data files (CSV, JSON, logs), generating reports, and saving application state. Always use `with` blocks — never call `open()` without a corresponding `close()`. Use 'a' mode for log files, 'w' for overwrite, 'r' for read-only.

H HOW TO USE?

with `open('file.txt', 'r', encoding='utf-8')` as `f`: is the standard pattern. Read all at once with `f.read()`. Iterate line by line with `for line in f`: (memory-efficient for large files). Write with `f.write()` or `f.writelines()`.

```
# Write a file
with open('notes.txt', 'w', encoding='utf-8') as f:
    f.write('Line 1\n')
    f.writelines(['Line 2\n', 'Line 3\n'])

# Read all at once
with open('notes.txt', 'r', encoding='utf-8') as f:
    content = f.read()

# Read line by line (memory-efficient)
with open('large_file.log') as f:
    for line in f:
        process(line.strip())

# Append to existing file
with open('log.txt', 'a') as f:
    f.write('New entry\n')
```


TOPIC 14

Cheatsheet 14 · Serialization & Config Files

JSON and YAML

W WHAT IS IT?

JSON (JavaScript Object Notation) is the universal data interchange format. Python's json module converts: Python dict ↔ JSON string (json.dumps/loads) and Python dict ↔ JSON file (json.dump/load). YAML (Yet Another Markup Language) is a superset of JSON used for human-readable config files — requires PyYAML (pip install pyyaml).

W WHEN TO USE?

Use JSON for APIs, web data exchange, saving structured app state, and inter-process communication. Use YAML for configuration files (Django settings, Docker Compose, GitHub Actions, Kubernetes). JSON is strict but universal; YAML is more readable but has edge cases.

H HOW TO USE?

json.loads(string) → dict. json.dumps(dict) → string. json.load(file) → dict. json.dump(dict, file). Use indent=2 for pretty printing. For YAML: yaml.safe_load() for reading (safer than yaml.load()), yaml.dump() for writing.

```
import json

data = {'name': 'Saim', 'age': 22, 'skills': ['Python', 'JS']}

# Serialize to JSON string
json_str = json.dumps(data, indent=2)

# Deserialize from JSON string
parsed = json.loads(json_str)

# Write to file
with open('data.json', 'w') as f:
    json.dump(data, f, indent=2)

# Read from file
with open('data.json') as f:
    loaded = json.load(f)

# YAML (requires: pip install pyyaml)
import yaml
cfg = yaml.safe_load(open('config.yaml'))
```

TOPIC 15

Cheatsheet 15 · try/except/finally

Exception Handling

W WHAT IS IT?

Exception handling lets programs respond gracefully to errors instead of crashing. Python uses try/except/else/finally blocks. Common exceptions: ValueError, TypeError, KeyError, IndexError, FileNotFoundError, ZeroDivisionError, AttributeError, ImportError. You can raise custom exceptions by subclassing Exception. Use raise to re-raise or propagate errors.

W WHEN TO USE?

Wrap external calls (file I/O, network requests, user input, database queries) in try/except. Use specific exception types — never bare except:. Use finally for cleanup code that must run regardless (closing connections, files). Use else block for code that runs only when no exception occurred.

H HOW TO USE?

try: risky code. except ExceptionType as e: handling. else: no-error code. finally: always runs. Catch multiple with except (TypeError, ValueError). Create custom exceptions: class MyError(Exception): pass. Use raise MyError('message') to throw.

```
# Basic exception handling
try:
    result = int(input('Enter number: '))
    print(10 / result)
except ValueError:
    print('Not a valid number!')
except ZeroDivisionError:
    print('Cannot divide by zero!')
else:
    print('Success!')
finally:
    print('Always runs')

# Custom exception
class ValidationError(Exception): pass

def validate_age(age):
    if age < 0: raise ValidationError('Age cannot be negative')
```

TOPIC 16

Cheatsheet 16 · pdb · print · logging

Debugging

W WHAT IS IT?

Debugging is the process of finding and fixing errors (bugs). Python provides: `print()` debugging (quick, dirty), the `pdb` module (Python Debugger — breakpoints, step-through), the logging module (structured, level-based output), and IDE debuggers (VS Code, PyCharm) that provide GUI breakpoints and variable inspection.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use `print()` for quick checks during development. Use logging for production code — it can be disabled without removing code. Use `pdb` or IDE debugger for complex bugs involving state, loops, or multiple function calls. Use `assert` for invariant checking during development.

H HOW TO USE?

Insert breakpoints with `breakpoint()` (Python 3.7+) or `import pdb; pdb.set_trace()`. `pdb` commands: `n` (next), `s` (step into), `c` (continue), `q` (quit), `p` (print variable). Set up logging: `logging.basicConfig(level=logging.DEBUG)`. Use `logging.debug()`, `.info()`, `.warning()`, `.error()`, `.critical()`.

```
import logging

# Setup logging
logging.basicConfig(
    level=logging.DEBUG,
    format='%(asctime)s %(levelname)s: %(message)s'
)

def divide(a, b):
    logging.debug(f'divide({a}, {b})')
    if b == 0:
        logging.error('Division by zero attempted')
        return None
    return a / b

# Breakpoint (pdb)
def buggy():
    x = [1, 2, 3]
    breakpoint() # execution pauses here
    return x[5] # IndexError to debug
```

TOPIC 17

Cheatsheet 17 · Variable Arguments

*args and **kwargs

W WHAT IS IT?

*args collects extra positional arguments into a tuple. **kwargs collects extra keyword arguments into a dict. This enables functions to accept a variable number of arguments. The * and ** operators also work for unpacking in function calls: func(*my_list) passes list elements as positional args, func(**my_dict) passes dict as keyword args.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use *args when designing functions that should work with any number of inputs (like sum, print). Use **kwargs for configuration functions, decorators, and wrapper functions that must forward all arguments. Both are heavily used in frameworks (Django, Flask, FastAPI) for flexible API design.

H HOW TO USE?

def func(*args, **kwargs). Always keep order: positional → *args → keyword → **kwargs. Unpack a list with *: print(*[1, 2, 3]) → print(1, 2, 3). Merge dicts with **: {**dict1, **dict2}. Pass through with: def wrapper(*args, **kwargs): return func(*args, **kwargs).

```
# *args – variable positionals
def total(*args):
    return sum(args)

print(total(1, 2, 3, 4)) # 10

# **kwargs – variable keywords
def profile(**kwargs):
    for k, v in kwargs.items():
        print(f'{k}: {v}')

profile(name='Saim', age=22, dept='SWE')

# Both together
def func(required, *args, **kwargs):
    print(required, args, kwargs)

# Unpacking
nums = [1, 2, 3]
print(max(*nums)) # same as max(1,2,3)
```

TOPIC 18

Cheatsheet 18 · with · `__enter__` · `__exit__`

Context Managers

W WHAT IS IT?

A context manager manages resource setup and teardown using the `with` statement. When you write `with open()` as `f`, Python calls `__enter__()` before the block and `__exit__()` after — even if an exception occurs. You can create custom context managers with the `contextlib.contextmanager` decorator or by implementing `__enter__` and `__exit__` in a class.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use context managers for any resource that must be released after use: files, database connections, network sockets, locks (threading), temporary directories, and mock patches in testing. They eliminate resource leaks and guarantee cleanup without manual `try/finally` blocks.

H HOW TO USE?

The `with` statement is the primary interface. Use `contextlib.contextmanager` with a generator that yields once — code before `yield` is `__enter__`, code after is `__exit__`. For class-based: implement `__enter__(self)` returning `self` and `__exit__(self, exc_type, exc_val, exc_tb)` returning `False` (to propagate exceptions).

```
from contextlib import contextmanager
import time

# Custom context manager via decorator
@contextmanager
def timer(label):
    start = time.time()
    yield # block executes here
    elapsed = time.time() - start
    print(f'{label}: {elapsed:.4f}s')

with timer('my task'):
    result = sum(range(1_000_000))

# Class-based context manager
class DBConnection:
    def __enter__(self):
        print('Connecting...')
        return self
    def __exit__(self, *args):
        print('Closing connection')
```

TOPIC 19

Cheatsheet 19 · Classes · Inheritance · Polymorphism

OOP Basics

W WHAT IS IT?

Object-Oriented Programming (OOP) organizes code around objects (instances of classes). Key concepts: Class (blueprint), Object (instance), Attribute (data), Method (behavior), `__init__` (constructor), `self` (instance reference). Pillars: Encapsulation (bundling data + methods), Inheritance (child extends parent), Polymorphism (same interface, different behavior), Abstraction (hide implementation).

W WHEN TO USE?

Use OOP when modeling real-world entities (User, Product, Order) or when building systems with related, interacting components. OOP shines in large codebases for maintainability and reuse. Prefer functions/modules for simple scripts. Frameworks (Django, SQLAlchemy) are built on OOP — understanding it is essential.

H HOW TO USE?

`class ClassName:` defines a class. `def __init__(self, ...):` is the constructor. Access attributes with `self.attr`. Call parent constructor with `super().__init__()`. Use `@property` for computed attributes. Use `@classmethod` and `@staticmethod` for alternative constructors and utility methods.

```
class Animal:
    def __init__(self, name, sound):
        self.name = name
        self._sound = sound # _protected

    def speak(self):
        return f'{self.name} says {self._sound}'

    @property
    def info(self):
        return f'Animal: {self.name}'

class Dog(Animal): # Inheritance
    def __init__(self, name):
        super().__init__(name, 'Woof')

    def fetch(self, item):
        return f'{self.name} fetches {item}!'

dog = Dog('Rex')
print(dog.speak()) # Rex says Woof
```

TOPIC 20

Cheatsheet 20 · @dataclass · field · frozen

Dataclasses

W WHAT IS IT?

Dataclasses (Python 3.7+, @dataclass decorator) auto-generate boilerplate methods: `__init__`, `__repr__`, `__eq__`. They are ideal for data containers that would otherwise require writing repetitive `__init__` code. Options: `frozen=True` for immutable instances, `order=True` for comparison operators, `field()` for default_factory (mutable defaults like lists).

W WHEN TO USE?

Use dataclasses instead of regular classes when the primary purpose is storing data (DTOs, config objects, database models, API response objects). They replace verbose classes with manual `__init__`. Use `frozen=True` for value objects like Point, Color, or any object used as a dict key. Prefer over namedtuple for complex data with methods.

H HOW TO USE?

@dataclass decorator above class definition. Type annotations are required. Use `field(default_factory=list)` for mutable default values (never use `[]` directly). Use `__post_init__` for validation after auto-generated `__init__`. from dataclasses import dataclass, field, asdict, astuple.

```
from dataclasses import dataclass, field

@dataclass
class Student:
    name: str
    student_id: int
    gpa: float = 0.0
    courses: list = field(default_factory=list)

    def __post_init__(self):
        if self.gpa < 0 or self.gpa > 4.0:
            raise ValueError('GPA must be 0.0-4.0')

    def enroll(self, course: str):
        self.courses.append(course)

s = Student('Saim', 2021001, gpa=3.85)
s.enroll('Python')
print(s) # Auto __repr__
```

TOPIC 21

Cheatsheet 21 · setup.py · pyproject.toml

Package Setup

W WHAT IS IT?

A Python package is a directory with an `__init__.py` file. To distribute a package on PyPI, you need packaging metadata: `pyproject.toml` (modern standard) or `setup.py/setup.cfg` (legacy). `pyproject.toml` uses build backends like `setuptools`, `flit`, or `poetry`. It defines: name, version, description, dependencies, entry points, and classifiers.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use package setup when you want to: distribute your code via `pip`, organize a multi-module project with proper imports, define CLI entry points, or share code across multiple projects. Even for internal tools, a `setup.py` makes installation reproducible. Use `pyproject.toml` for all new projects.

H HOW TO USE?

Create `pyproject.toml` in project root. Use `pip install -e .` for editable install during development. Structure: `src/` layout puts package inside `src/` directory to avoid import confusion. Use `python -m build + twine upload` to publish to PyPI.

```
# pyproject.toml (modern standard)
[build-system]
requires = ['setuptools>=64']
build-backend = 'setuptools.backends.legacy:build'

[project]
name = 'my-package'
version = '0.1.0'
description = 'My Python package'
requires-python = '>=3.10'
dependencies = ['requests>=2.28', 'click>=8.0']

[project.scripts]
my-tool = 'my_package.cli:main'

# Install in editable mode for development
# pip install -e .
```


TOPIC 22

Cheatsheet 22 · `__name__ == '__main__'`

Main (Top-level Script)

W WHAT IS IT?

When Python runs a file directly, `__name__` is set to `'__main__'`. When the same file is imported as a module, `__name__` is the module's name. The guard `if __name__ == '__main__':` ensures certain code only runs when the file is executed directly — not when imported. This is essential for scripts with both importable functions AND runnable behavior.

W WHEN TO USE?

Always use the `__main__` guard in any script that defines reusable functions AND has executable code (print statements, function calls, setup code). Without it, importing the file would run all top-level code unintentionally. It also enables test imports — test files can import the module without side effects.

H HOW TO USE?

Place all executable/entry-point code inside `if __name__ == '__main__':`. Define functions, classes, and constants at the module level (always safe). Use `def main():` for the entry point, then call it inside the guard. This is the pattern used by all professional Python CLI tools.

```
# utils.py
def add(a, b):
    return a + b

def multiply(a, b):
    return a * b

def main():
    print('Running as script')
    print(add(3, 4)) # 7
    print(multiply(3, 4)) # 12

if __name__ == '__main__':
    main()

# When imported:
# from utils import add -> works, no side effects
# python utils.py -> runs main()
```

TOPIC 23

Cheatsheet 23 · venv · pip · isolation

Virtual Environments

W WHAT IS IT?

A virtual environment (venv) is an isolated Python installation with its own site-packages. It prevents dependency conflicts between projects. Tools: venv (built-in), virtualenv, conda, poetry, pipenv. Key files: pyvenv.cfg, bin/python, bin/pip, Lib/site-packages. requirements.txt captures all installed packages with pip freeze.

W WHEN TO USE?

Always use a virtual environment for every Python project. Without it, all packages install globally and projects can break each other (Project A needs Django 3.2, Project B needs Django 4.2). Activate venv before installing anything. Use requirements.txt for reproducible deployments.

H HOW TO USE?

Create: `python -m venv .venv`. Activate: `source .venv/bin/activate` (Linux/Mac) or `.venv\Scripts\activate` (Windows). Deactivate: `deactivate`. Install packages: `pip install package`. Save: `pip freeze > requirements.txt`. Restore: `pip install -r requirements.txt`.

```
# Create virtual environment
python -m venv .venv

# Activate (Linux/Mac)
source .venv/bin/activate

# Activate (Windows)
.venv\Scripts\activate

# Install packages
pip install flask sqlalchemy pytest

# Save dependencies
pip freeze > requirements.txt

# Restore in new environment
pip install -r requirements.txt

# Deactivate
deactivate
```

PART 2

Standard Library

Topics 24 — 32

TOPIC 24

Standard Library 01 · copy module

copy — Shallow & Deep Copy

W WHAT IS IT?

The copy module provides `copy.copy()` (shallow copy) and `copy.deepcopy()` (deep copy). A shallow copy creates a new object but references the same nested objects. A deep copy creates a completely independent duplicate — new object AND new nested objects. Assignment (`b = a`) creates no copy at all — just another reference.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use `copy.copy()` when the object has no nested mutable objects (flat lists, simple dicts). Use `copy.deepcopy()` when the object contains nested lists, dicts, or objects that must be fully independent. Critical in: cloning game state, duplicating config objects, and functional programming patterns.

H HOW TO USE?

`import copy`. `copy.copy(obj)` for shallow, `copy.deepcopy(obj)` for deep. Lists have a shallow copy shortcut: `new_list = original[:]` or `list.copy()`. Dicts: `new_dict = original.copy()` (shallow). For classes, define `__copy__` and `__deepcopy__` to control copying behavior.

```
import copy

original = [[1, 2], [3, 4]]

# Assignment – same object!
ref = original
ref[0].append(99) # modifies original too!

# Shallow copy – new list, same inner lists
shallow = copy.copy(original)
shallow[0].append(99) # still modifies original[0]!

# Deep copy – fully independent
deep = copy.deepcopy(original)
deep[0].append(99) # original unchanged

print(original) # [[1, 2], [3, 4]]
print(deep) # [[1, 2, 99], [3, 4]]
```

TOPIC 25

Standard Library 02 · datetime module

datetime — Dates & Times

W WHAT IS IT?

The datetime module handles dates, times, and time deltas. Key classes: `datetime.date` (year, month, day), `datetime.time` (hour, minute, second), `datetime.datetime` (date + time combined), `datetime.timedelta` (duration/difference). Supports: parsing strings to datetime (`strptime`), formatting datetime to strings (`strftime`), timezone-aware datetimes with `pytz` or `zoneinfo`.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use datetime whenever your application deals with scheduling, logging timestamps, calculating durations, comparing dates, or displaying formatted dates/times. Always store timestamps in UTC internally and convert to local timezone for display. Use `timedelta` for date arithmetic (adding days, computing deadlines).

H HOW TO USE?

`from datetime import datetime, date, timedelta`. Now: `datetime.now()`. Parse: `datetime.strptime(s, fmt)`. Format: `dt.strftime(fmt)`. Common formats: `'%Y-%m-%d %H:%M:%S'`, `'%d/%m/%Y'`. Arithmetic: `date + timedelta(days=30)`. Difference: `(dt2 - dt1).days`.

```
from datetime import datetime, date, timedelta

# Current datetime
now = datetime.now()
print(now.strftime('%Y-%m-%d %H:%M:%S'))

# Parse from string
dt = datetime.strptime('2025-06-15', '%Y-%m-%d')

# Date arithmetic
deadline = date.today() + timedelta(days=30)
print(f'Deadline: {deadline}')

# Time difference
start = datetime(2025, 1, 1)
end = datetime(2025, 6, 15)
diff = (end - start).days
print(f'{diff} days elapsed')
```

TOPIC 26

Standard Library 03 · itertools module

itertools — Iterator Toolkit

W WHAT IS IT?

itertools provides fast, memory-efficient tools for creating iterators. Infinite iterators: `count()`, `cycle()`, `repeat()`. Finite combinators: `chain()`, `islice()`, `compress()`, `dropwhile()`, `takewhile()`, `groupby()`. Combinatoric iterators: `product()`, `permutations()`, `combinations()`, `combinations_with_replacement()`. All return lazy iterators — memory-efficient.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use itertools for: combining multiple iterables without creating intermediate lists (`chain`), working with infinite sequences (`count` for IDs), grouping sorted data (`groupby`), generating all combinations/permutations for algorithmic problems, and sliding window operations (`pairwise`, `zip` with `islice`).

H HOW TO USE?

from `itertools` import `chain`, `groupby`, `combinations`, `product`, etc. Results are lazy iterators — wrap with `list()` to see all results at once. `groupby()` requires sorted input to group correctly. Use `itertools.islice(iterator, n)` to take only first `n` elements of an infinite iterator.

```
from itertools import chain, combinations, groupby, product

# chain: flatten iterables
all_items = list(chain([1,2], [3,4], [5]))
# [1, 2, 3, 4, 5]

# combinations: choose r from n
teams = list(combinations(['A','B','C','D'], 2))
# [('A','B'),('A','C'),('A','D'),('B','C')...]

# groupby: group sorted data
data = [('A', 1), ('A', 2), ('B', 3), ('B', 4)]
for key, group in groupby(data, key=lambda x: x[0]):
    print(key, list(group))

# product: cartesian product
pairs = list(product('AB', repeat=2))
# [('A','A'),('A','B'),('B','A'),('B','B')]
```

TOPIC 27

Standard Library 04 · json module deep-dive

json — JSON Processing

W WHAT IS IT?

The json module (standard library) handles JSON encoding and decoding. It supports: serializing Python objects to JSON strings/files, deserializing JSON to Python objects, custom encoders (JSONEncoder subclass) for non-serializable types like datetime, Decimal, and custom classes. Type mapping: dict↔object, list↔array, str↔string, int/float↔number, bool↔true/false, None↔null.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use the json module for REST API responses, configuration files, data storage, and inter-service communication. When working with datetimes or Decimal values in JSON, write a custom encoder. For large JSON files, use ijson for streaming parsing to avoid loading the entire file into memory.

H HOW TO USE?

Four core functions: json.dumps(obj) → string, json.loads(s) → object, json.dump(obj, file) → write file, json.load(file) → read file. Key params: indent (pretty-print), sort_keys, ensure_ascii, default (for custom types). For custom encoder: class MyEncoder(json.JSONEncoder): def default(self, obj):...

```
import json
from datetime import datetime

# Custom encoder for datetime
class DateTimeEncoder(json.JSONEncoder):
    def default(self, obj):
        if isinstance(obj, datetime):
            return obj.isoformat()
        return super().default(obj)

data = {'event': 'exam', 'date': datetime(2025, 6, 15)}
json_str = json.dumps(data, cls=DateTimeEncoder, indent=2)

# Pretty-print with sort
cfg = {'z': 3, 'a': 1, 'm': 2}
print(json.dumps(cfg, sort_keys=True, indent=2))

# Streaming large files: use json.load() line by line
with open('data.json') as f:
    records = json.load(f)
```

TOPIC 28

Standard Library 05 · os module

os — Operating System Interface

W WHAT IS IT?

The `os` module provides a portable interface to operating system functionality: environment variables (`os.environ`), process management (`os.getpid()`, `os.system()`), directory operations (`os.mkdir()`, `os.listdir()`, `os.getcwd()`, `os.chdir()`), file operations (`os.rename()`, `os.remove()`), and path operations (`os.path.*`). Note: prefer `pathlib` over `os.path` for path handling.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use `os` for: reading environment variables (`os.environ.get('API_KEY')`), running shell commands (`os.system()` or better: `subprocess`), checking if a path exists (`os.path.exists()`), walking directory trees (`os.walk()`). Use `pathlib` for path manipulation. Use `subprocess` for shell commands.

H HOW TO USE?

`import os`. Most common: `os.environ.get('VAR', 'default')` for env vars. `os.walk(top)` yields (dirpath, dirnames, filenames) tuples recursively. `os.makedirs(path, exist_ok=True)` creates nested directories. `os.path.join()` builds paths (but prefer `pathlib.Path` / for new code).

```
import os

# Environment variables
db_url = os.environ.get('DATABASE_URL', 'sqlite:///dev.db')
api_key = os.environ.get('API_KEY') # None if missing

# Current directory and listing
print(os.getcwd())
files = os.listdir('.')

# Walk directory tree
for root, dirs, files in os.walk('./project'):
    for f in files:
        full_path = os.path.join(root, f)
        print(full_path)

# Create nested directories
os.makedirs('output/reports/2025', exist_ok=True)

# File operations
os.rename('old_name.txt', 'new_name.txt')
```


TOPIC 29

Standard Library 06 · pathlib module

pathlib — Modern Path Handling

W WHAT IS IT?

pathlib (Python 3.4+) provides Path objects for cross-platform filesystem path manipulation. Path objects are string-like but with rich methods: `.exists()`, `.is_file()`, `.is_dir()`, `.mkdir()`, `.rmdir()`, `.unlink()`, `.rename()`, `.read_text()`, `.write_text()`, `.glob()`, `.rglob()`, `.iterdir()`. The `/` operator joins paths elegantly.

W WHEN TO USE?

Prefer pathlib over `os.path` for all new code. Use it whenever your program touches the filesystem: reading/writing files, listing directories, finding files by pattern. `Path.read_text()` and `Path.write_text()` replace `open()` for simple file operations. Use `rglob('*.*')` to find files recursively.

H HOW TO USE?

from pathlib import Path. Common workflow: `p = Path('data') / 'file.csv'`. Check: `if p.exists()`. Read: `p.read_text()`. Write: `p.write_text(content)`. List: `list(p.iterdir())`. Find: `list(p.rglob('*.*'))`. `p.stat().st_size` gives file size. `p.with_suffix('.txt')` changes extension.

```
from pathlib import Path

p = Path('data') / 'reports' / '2025' / 'june.txt'

# Simple read/write
p.parent.mkdir(parents=True, exist_ok=True)
p.write_text('June Report\nData here', encoding='utf-8')
content = p.read_text(encoding='utf-8')

# Properties
print(p.name) # june.txt
print(p.stem) # june
print(p.suffix) # .txt
print(p.parent) # data/reports/2025

# Find all JSON files recursively
for f in Path('.').rglob('*.*'):
    print(f.name, f.stat().st_size, 'bytes')
```

TOPIC 30

Standard Library 07 · random module

random — Randomization

W WHAT IS IT?

The random module generates pseudo-random numbers (not cryptographically secure). Key functions: random.random() (float 0.0–1.0), random.randint(a, b) (int inclusive), random.choice(seq) (random element), random.choices(seq, weights, k) (weighted choices), random.shuffle(list) (in-place shuffle), random.sample(seq, k) (k unique choices). Use secrets module for security-sensitive randomness.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use random for: simulations, games, sampling data, generating test data, shuffling playlists, random delays, Monte Carlo methods. Never use random for security-sensitive operations (tokens, passwords, session IDs) — use the secrets module instead. Use random.seed(n) for reproducible results in testing.

H HOW TO USE?

import random. Set seed for reproducibility: random.seed(42). random.choices() with weights is useful for probability-weighted selection. For sampling without replacement: random.sample(population, k). For secure randomness: import secrets; secrets.token_hex(16).

```
import random, secrets

random.seed(42) # reproducible results

print(random.random()) # 0.0 to 1.0
print(random.randint(1, 100)) # int 1-100
print(random.choice(['a', 'b', 'c']))

# Weighted random selection
outcomes = ['win', 'lose', 'draw']
weights = [0.4, 0.4, 0.2]
result = random.choices(outcomes, weights, k=1)[0]

# Shuffle in place
deck = list(range(1, 53))
random.shuffle(deck)

# Secure token (for passwords/sessions)
token = secrets.token_hex(16) # 32 char hex string
```

TOPIC 31

Standard Library 08 · shelve module

shelve — Persistent Storage

W WHAT IS IT?

shelve provides a persistent dictionary-backed by a database file. Unlike JSON, shelve can store any picklable Python object as values — including instances of custom classes, nested dicts, numpy arrays. It uses dbm internally and provides dict-like access: `shelf['key'] = value`. Not suitable for concurrent access or production databases.

W WHEN TO USE?

Use shelve for: simple persistent caches, storing program state between runs, quick prototypes needing persistence without setting up SQLite/PostgreSQL, small personal tools. Avoid shelve for: multi-user apps, concurrent access, large datasets, or when you need queryability (use SQLite or PostgreSQL instead).

H HOW TO USE?

with `shelve.open('filename')` as `shelf`: creates/opens the database. Use like a dict: `shelf['key'] = value`, `val = shelf['key']`. `flag='r'` for read-only, `'n'` for new (clears existing), `'c'` for create-if-not-exists. Set `writeback=True` to automatically track changes to mutable values.

```
import shelve

# Store objects persistently
with shelve.open('myapp_data') as shelf:
    shelf['user'] = {'name': 'Saim', 'score': 100}
    shelf['settings'] = {'theme': 'dark', 'lang': 'en'}

# Retrieve later (even after program restart!)
with shelve.open('myapp_data') as shelf:
    user = shelf['user']
    print(user['name']) # Saim

# Update value
data = shelf['user']
data['score'] += 10
shelf['user'] = data # must reassign

# Check existence
print('settings' in shelf) # True
```

TOPIC 32

Standard Library 09 · zipfile module

zipfile — ZIP Archives

W WHAT IS IT?

The zipfile module reads and writes ZIP archives. ZipFile class supports: extracting files (extract(), extractall()), listing contents (namelist(), infolist()), reading without extracting (open()), writing/adding files (write(), writestr()), and compression (ZIP_DEFLATED, ZIP_BZIP2, ZIP_LZMA). Supports password-protected ZIPs (read-only with pwd= parameter).

W WHEN TO USE?

Use zipfile for: packaging deployment files, creating archives for download, reading ZIP-based formats (XLSX, DOCX are ZIP files internally), compressing log files for storage, and batch file transfer. For TAR archives (Linux): use tarfile module. For simple in-memory compression: use gzip or zlib.

H HOW TO USE?

with zipfile.ZipFile('archive.zip', 'r') as zf: for reading. Use 'w' to create, 'a' to append to existing. zf.extractall('output/') extracts everything. zf.extract('file.txt', 'dest/') extracts one. zf.write('local_file.txt', arcname='inner_name.txt') adds with custom name.

```
import zipfile
from pathlib import Path

# Create a ZIP archive
with zipfile.ZipFile('project.zip', 'w', zipfile.ZIP_DEFLATED) as zf:
    for py_file in Path('.').glob('*.py'):
        zf.write(py_file, arcname=py_file.name)

# List contents
with zipfile.ZipFile('project.zip', 'r') as zf:
    for info in zf.infolist():
        print(f'{info.filename}: {info.file_size} bytes')

# Extract all
with zipfile.ZipFile('project.zip') as zf:
    zf.extractall('extracted/')

# Read a file inside ZIP without extracting
with zipfile.ZipFile('project.zip') as zf:
    with zf.open('main.py') as f:
        print(f.read().decode())
```